
Attitude Differences Between Paid Workers and Volunteers

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This study addresses the extension of research on paid employees to volunteer workers. Pearce (1978, 1993b) has postulated that job attitudes are substantially different between volunteers and paid employees, based on her work studying fourteen organizations employing either entirely volunteer workgroups or entirely paid workgroups. Another interpretation of her data would be that the organizational culture of such workgroups is different, not the individual job attitudes.

A survey of paid and volunteer workers in similar jobs in a single hospital setting was used to assess their job attitudes along the dimensions of the psychological contract, organizational commitment, and organizational justice. The psychological contract was substantially similar between paid employees and volunteers, with the exception of psychological contracts regarding benefits. In addition, organizational commitment and organizational justice were substantially similar between paid employees and volunteers, with the exception of the continuance dimension of organizational commitment. This similarity of job attitudes among volunteers and paid employees was found after controlling for age, gender, ethnicity, income, holding a volunteer job in addition to this position, and holding a paid job in addition to this position. These findings may not be generalizable beyond a highly structured volunteer setting such as a hospital.

THE PRIVATE nonprofit sector accounted for \$315.9 billion of the U.S. economy in 1990 (Hodgkinson, Weitzman, Toppe, and Noga, 1992), which was made up of \$193.7 billion in financial wealth and \$122.2 billion of assigned value of volunteer work. By comparison, the private for-profit sector accounted for \$3,623.2 billion, \$3,606.2 billion of wealth and \$17 billion of

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assigned value of volunteer work and family workers; the public sector accounted for \$692.5 billion, comprising \$645.9 billion in wealth and \$46.6 billion in assigned volunteer work (Hodgkinson, Weitzman, Toppe, and Noga, 1992). Further, 6.8 percent of the total U.S. workforce are full-time volunteers (Hodgkinson, Weitzman, Toppe, and Noga, 1992), with 4.6 percent in private nonprofits, 0.4 percent in business—not including family members working for free—and 1.8 percent in the public sector (Hodgkinson, Weitzman, Toppe, and Noga, 1992).

Volunteer workers hold jobs in the public, nonprofit, and private sectors in a variety of positions. Some of these jobs have no similar parallel with paid positions (for instance, Girl Scout leader). Other volunteer jobs are very similar to paid positions in organizations (member of board of directors, tourist guide). Pearce (1978, 1983, 1993b) studied paid and volunteer workers in seven organizations (local newspaper, day care, poverty relief agency, symphonic orchestra, family planning clinic, hospital gift shops, and fire departments) and found a variety of behavioral and attitudinal differences among individuals in different organizations. Her main finding was that job attitudes were more similar across type of employee (paid versus volunteer) than across organization (for example, day care versus newspaper). These differences essentially were related to the purpose of doing the job—the worker's motivations. Paid employees are predominantly rewarded for their work by their compensation; volunteers are rewarded in some other way. This distinction of expectations and experience, Pearce argues, leads to a variety of differences within the organization.

Although a strength of Pearce's study (1978, 1983) is the use of fourteen organizations of various sorts, a limitation of her study design is the selection of only all-volunteer and all-paid-employee organizations. Essentially, she analyzed seven wholly volunteer-staffed organizations and compared these with seven wholly paid-employee organizations. She does not address this potential limitation in her discussion, but she may have been picking up the difference in the work between an exclusively volunteer workforce and an exclusively paid workforce. In reality, many organizations that use volunteers (such as hospitals, museums, and human service agencies) also have professional paid staff. There are several advantages to using a combination of paid and volunteer workers, especially in terms of diversity of skills that lend themselves to organization knowledge with a workforce of differing employment status (Matusik and Hill, 1998). There can also be economic savings using a partially volunteer staff, which has incurred the ire of unions in some settings (Liao-Troth, 1999).

If Pearce's findings were a result of the work environment rather than the employment status of the workers, then an alternative research hypothesis to her work would be:

HYPOTHESIS 1. Volunteer and paid employees do not differ in general job attitudes when working in the same organization, doing substantially similar work, and interacting with one another.

Some research on employment status in the job environment supports this. Pearce (1993a) herself found that there were no differences between employees and contract workers in terms of organizational citizenship or commitment in the same work environment.

On the other hand, some research has found that employment status within an organization does have an effect on job attitudes. Van Dyne and Ang (1998) found among workers in Singapore that full-time employees had greater organizational citizenship behaviors, psychological contract expectations, and affective commitment than did contingent workers. There are also some job attitudes that, although specific to paid employees, would not generalize to volunteers. Laczó and Hanisch (1999) recently looked at paid employees and volunteers performing similar work in a museum setting and found that these two groups varied in terms of job withdrawal (more prevalent among paid employees) and organizational citizenship behaviors (more prevalent among volunteers).

The constructs of job withdrawal and organizational citizenship behaviors relate to why the volunteer or paid employee is in the organization. The paid employee is obviously getting paid, as well as receiving other tangible or intangible benefits. The volunteer is not getting paid but is definitely receiving tangible and intangible benefits. A volunteer may or may not respond attitudinally to a reduction in pay (or a substitute benefit), but a paid employee should be much more likely to respond. To this end, a corollary of the first hypothesis is presented:

HYPOTHESIS 2. Volunteers and paid employees differ in job attitudes—while working in the same organization, doing substantially similar work, and interacting with one another—when the job attitude is specifically related to the economic relationship between the employee and the organization.

One way to see if Pearce's effects were for the organizational environment or employment status (paid versus volunteer) would be to evaluate the job attitudes of volunteers and paid employees in the same organizations doing essentially similar work. From the aforementioned studies on employment status, the job attitudes of the psychological contract, organizational commitment, and organizational justice will be addressed. Laczó and Hanisch (1999) have already addressed organizational citizenship behaviors, but the psychological contract and commitment have not yet been researched in comparing paid employees and volunteers. In addition, organizational

justice is addressed because of its integral relationship to these two constructs (Morrison and Robinson, 1997).

The Psychological Contract

The psychological contract is created in the mind of an employee, based on her or his perceptions of what employment issues have been agreed upon, beyond those of any formal contract (Rousseau, 1995). This is not a contract in the legal sense, but rather the individual's interpretation of what agreements have been made with the organization. Rousseau (1990) talks of the psychological contract as falling into two broad categories: *transactional*, where high pay and advancement are given for hard work, and *relational*, where job security is given by the organization for an employee's loyalty and a minimum stay. These can be seen as directed by the firm's human resource management practices and how it rewards employees.

Extending and applying psychological contract literature and research to volunteer workers would appear to be quite important. Farmer and Fedor (1999) point out the importance of using the psychological contract in understanding volunteer behavior. Measuring volunteers' psychological contracts would be one way of evaluating their work expectations. Understanding these contracts would assist people who manage volunteers in understanding what the volunteer expects (Liao-Troth and Dunn, 1999). Unfortunately, Farmer and Fedor (1999) incorrectly specify the psychological contract as an expectation in their instrument (p. 363), in stark contrast to the separation of the constructs of psychological contract and expectation (Rousseau, 1995; Robinson, 1996). Farmer and Fedor limit their interpretation of the construct to expectations overall, and to the specific issue of perceived organizational support.

Transactional and relational contracts were originally used to describe two broad categories of psychological contract. However, subsequent work has focused those two categories only on what the individual owes the organization (*hard work* for high recognition and pay as transactional, *loyalty* for long job tenure as relational). Rousseau and Tijoriwala (1996a, 1996b) categorized four types of promise an organization might in turn specifically give to an individual. These relate to the benefits provided, good faith and fair dealings, intrinsic job characteristics, and the working conditions. These obligations of the organization are not tied to specific kinds of psychological contract (transactional and relational) but are specific to each psychological contract.

Benefits address the compensation and perquisites that include salary and other (sometimes intangible) compensation. The benefits offered would definitely be of great concern for someone who is a paid individual. This should not be of such great concern for volunteers. The promise of *good faith and fair dealings* is concerned

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with the interpersonal interactions between the individual and the organization (through its representatives). However, there is no reason to think that this contract form would be more prevalent in one form of work motivation over another. It should be found equally among paid employees and volunteers. *Intrinsic job characteristics* deal with the enrichment and level of personal satisfaction in working a particular job. This promise would be of concern for someone who is a volunteer or a paid employee. The promise of *working conditions* addresses the safety, resources, and intangible aspects of a specific work situation. This should be important to an individual volunteering and to a paid individual equally.

An important component of the psychological contract not addressed in this study is its fulfillment or violation. This perception of contract fulfillment (the inverse of violation) is a separate attribution from the perception of the strength of the psychological contract. At any given time, the status of a psychological contract can be fulfilled, violated, or in some ambiguous state where the psychological contract has yet to be definitively fulfilled or violated.

Recent work has begun to address the relationships between the psychological contract and related organizational behavior constructs, such as organizational commitment and organizational justice. Rousseau and Tijoriwala's redefinition (1996a, 1996b) of relational contracts as agreements about belonging relate the psychological contract to organizational commitment. In addition, Rousseau and Anton's work (1988, 1991) on violation of the psychological contract relates the psychological contract to organizational justice.

Organizational Commitment

Organizational commitment is defined as the degree to which an employee feels obligated to an employer. This is different from the psychological contract in that there is no exchange assumption in organizational commitment. Most models present organizational commitment as an outcome of the psychological contract of an employee, among other effects (see, for example, Morrison and Robinson, 1997). Organizational commitment is most frequently addressed in terms of how much an employee might "like" the employing organization, but the construct has additional meanings.

Allen and Meyer's literature review of studies in organizational commitment (1990) led to identifying three forms of organizational commitment. *Affective commitment* is described as an employee's emotional attachment and involvement with the organization. *Continuance commitment* is described as the intention of an employee to remain with an employer in light of the cost of leaving the employer. *Normative commitment* is described as an employee's

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feeling of obligation to remain with the employer. Dunham, Grube, and Castañeda (1994) found that a decrease in any of the three forms of commitment led to increased intention to leave the organization.

The employment status of a worker should affect some aspects of organizational commitment. Affective commitment is the degree of liking the organization. When people select organizations, this is important for both volunteers and paid workers. In addition, in the case of high employment (that is, an unemployment rate of less than 5 percent) and multiple potential employers (in other words, more opportunities for employment), this should continue to be important to both volunteers and paid employees. The reason for this is that people have several options of where they would be "happiest." As continuance commitment considers the cost of changing employers, it should be most strongly related to paid employees: volunteers should have no (or low) switching costs when changing organizations.

For normative commitment, I am making no specific predictions. Normative is considered to be affected primarily by values, attitudes, and beliefs. It may be found equally among paid and volunteer workers, as this is a measure of a general sense of staying with an organization, regardless of liking it (affective commitment) or having a high cost of leaving (continuance commitment). Indeed, an individual who has a high measure of normative commitment will express it in either an employer or a volunteer outlet.

Organizational Justice

Organizational justice addresses perceptions of fairness in the workplace and has been delineated into two major components: distributive justice and procedural justice. The former addresses the justice or appropriateness of outcomes, whereas the latter concerns the justice of the process as applied to the individual. This process aspect of justice is further differentiated by some researchers as formal characteristics of the process, information offered to the employee, and interpersonal treatment (Greenberg, 1990; Gilliland, 1993). Others define them as separate justice concepts: formal procedural justice and interactional justice (Bies and Moag, 1986; Moorman, 1991). In this study, I use the distinction among distributive, procedural, and interactional justice.

The employment status of a worker, in terms of being a paid employee or a volunteer, should not affect perceived organizational justice. Since paid employees and volunteers are working in the same organization, they would fall under the same work rules and feel that the outcomes are fair or unfair, but there should be no difference in terms of employment status for distributive justice. Regarding procedural justice, both would feel that inconsistent procedures are unfair and consistent procedures are fair, so attitudes about procedural justice should not differ between paid employees and

volunteers. Finally, both volunteers and paid employees would respond similarly to poor treatment or good treatment by the organization; they should not differ in terms of interactional justice.

In summary, I am proposing eleven job attitudes and how they relate to the employment status (paid versus volunteer) of an employee (see Table 1). Six of the attitudes deal with the relationship of paid employees and volunteer workers with the kinds of psychological contract that can form. Five of the attitudes address organizational commitment and organizational justice. If we relate these attitudes to the original hypotheses presented, then the promises of the psychological contract in regard to benefits and the continuance aspect of organizational commitment should be different for volunteers and paid employees (Hypothesis 2). All other job attitudes should be similar (Hypothesis 1).

Method

This study consisted of a survey of employees at a large medical center in a metropolitan area of the southwestern United States. The survey queried several attitudes the employee held about his or her work and employer. To control for the organizational effects that may have created Pearce's findings (1978, 1993b), only one site was used. However, recognition must be given to the limits of generalizability of the findings of this study because of this methodological approach.

Table 1. Hypothesis Review

<i>Hypothesis</i>	<i>Dependent Variables</i>
Hypothesis 1: Volunteer and paid employees do not differ in general job attitudes when working in the same organization, doing substantially similar work, and interacting with one another.	Transactional obligations Relational obligations Promises of good faith and fair dealings Promises regarding intrinsic job characteristics Promises regarding working conditions Distributive justice Interactional justice Procedural justice Affective commitment
Hypothesis 2: Volunteer and paid employees differ in job attitudes—while working in the same organization, doing substantially similar work, and interacting with one another—when the job attitude is specifically related to the economic relationship between the employee and the organization.	Promises regarding benefits Continuance commitment

Sample

Subjects were paid and volunteer workers doing similar job tasks at the medical center. One hundred eight of 300 potential participants returned surveys (a 36 percent overall response rate), of which 67 were volunteers and 41 were paid employees. Respondents were on average 58.68 years old (SD 17.81 years); 76.2 percent female and 23.8 percent male; 90 percent white, 4 percent Hispanic, 3 percent other, 2 percent Asian American, and 1 percent African American. The modal income was in the \$20,000–30,000 range, with the interquartile range covered by three categories that collectively addressed income from \$20,000 to \$60,000. The mode and median of education level was some college ($n = 42$), with education ranging in categories from high school graduate ($n = 21$) to terminal graduate degree (defined as Ph.D. or M.D. in the survey; $n = 2$). Finally, 7.8 percent of the respondents had a paid job in addition to the job (paid or volunteer) for which they were answering the survey, and 33.7 percent of the respondents had a volunteer job in addition to the job (paid or volunteer) for which they were answering the survey.

Procedures

Surveys were distributed to volunteers at their semimonthly staff meetings, with instructions to complete one and give another to a comparison-other paid employee. This comparison-other had to be in the same work group and perform substantially similar work as the volunteer. All volunteer staff at this medical center were organized into teams by job tasks. The teams were also used for the paid staff. The positions in general were nurse assistants, but some teams were specialized by ward or task area. The volunteers and paid employees worked together on the same teams. Both volunteers and paid employees were rewarded with a coupon for a cookie in the cafeteria as a reward for their participation when they returned their anonymous survey to a centrally placed drop box.

Measures

A survey was used to capture job attitudes of the respondents. Unless otherwise noted, all measures are five-item Likert scales.

Employment Status. The subjects self-reported their status as a volunteer or paid employee.

The Psychological Contract. For this study, a modified version of Rousseau's instrument (1998) was used (see the appendix).

Organizational Commitment. Allen and Meyer's twenty-four item measure (1990) of all three forms (affective, continuance, normative) of commitment was used. Dunham, Grube, and Castañeda (1994) provided psychometric support for these three forms of commitment. Each form is an eight-item measure. To compare with the original

instrument, I calculated Cronbach's alphas for the various subscales: for affective commitment, I recorded an alpha of .79 and for continuance commitment .66. Dunham, Grube, and Castañeda (1994) recorded alphas ranging from .74 to .87 for affective commitment and .73 to .81 for continuance commitment, across the nine samples they report.

Organizational Justice. Moorman (1991) designed an eighteen-item measure of the three aspects of organizational justice based on Price and Mueller (1986): for formal procedures a seven-item measure for which I measured an alpha of .95; for interactional justice, a six-item measure demonstrated an alpha of .93; and for distributive justice, five items demonstrated an alpha of .96.

Control Variables

The control variables included were age in years, gender (female and male), ethnic identity (collapsed into two categories, white versus nonwhite, owing to the small number of individuals in most ethnic groups), income (ordinal groupings of income ranges), a paid job in addition to the job being studied, and a volunteer job in addition to the job being studied. The latter two are controlled out of concern that individuals in multiple organizational settings may build their job impressions from more than the site of study.

Analysis

A hierarchical regression was used for each dependent variable. Control variables were entered on the first step (as a simultaneous entry of a block of variables) to ensure that significant results were the result of employment status rather than an artifact of a demographic variable, and the employment status (volunteer or paid employee) was entered on the second step.

Results

Correlations of all the variables of interest can be found in Table 2. A total of 67 of 150 volunteers participated (44.67 percent response rate), as did 41 of the 67 potential matching paid employees (61.19 percent response rate). The volunteer sample was representative of the population of volunteer nurse assistants on the variables of gender, race, and age, by way of a cross-tab and chi-square measure for gender and race and a *t* test for age. For the paid employees, the sample was compared with all paid employees, as it was not possible to isolate the solicited 67 paid employees. This sample was also representative on the control variables of race and age, but not gender. There were more women participating in the sample than employed by the hospital in general, but that may be expected among paid nurse assistants.

Table 2. Correlations of Constructs

	Employ	PC-Rel	PC-Trans	OP-Bene	OP-Good	OP-Intrin	OP-Work	OC-Affec	OC-Cont	OC-Norm	OJ-Dist	OJ-Inter	OJ-Proc
Employ	1.00	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—
PC-Rel	0.13	(0.74)	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—
PC-Trans	-0.06	0.11	(0.85)	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—
OP-Bene	0.48***	0.11	-0.07	(0.81)	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—
OP-Good	-0.44***	-0.11	0.24*	-0.06	(0.88)	—	—	—	—	—	—	—	—
OP-Intrin	-0.13	0.16	0.40***	0.15	0.55***	(0.85)	—	—	—	—	—	—	—
OP-Work	-0.22*	0.01	0.45***	0.06	0.73***	0.76***	(0.88)	—	—	—	—	—	—
OC-Affec	-0.28***	0.02	0.27***	-0.08	0.53***	0.31***	0.40***	(0.79)	—	—	—	—	—
OC-Cont	0.54***	0.10	0.09	0.39***	-0.03	0.11	0.04	0.07	(0.66)	—	—	—	—
OC-Norm	-0.20*	0.21*	0.16	-0.04	0.14	0.10	0.06	0.28***	0.19	(0.54)	—	—	—
OJ-Dist	-0.48***	-0.04	0.24*	-0.10	0.65***	0.44***	0.53***	0.51***	-0.13	0.22*	(0.96)	—	—
OJ-Inter	-0.28***	-0.09	0.37***	-0.21*	0.50***	0.33***	0.48***	0.37***	-0.07	0.15	0.44***	(0.94)	—
OJ-Proc	-0.27***	0.05	0.23*	-0.09	0.55***	0.35***	0.58***	0.43***	-0.02	0.11	0.48***	0.34***	(0.95)
N	108	96	102	90	96	97	96	106	101	100	103	98	95
M	0.38	2.77	4.50	1.81	3.76	3.80	3.79	3.47	2.51	3.13	3.40	4.09	3.29
SD	0.49	1.12	0.49	0.94	0.91	0.84	0.78	0.78	0.82	0.86	1.01	0.81	0.88

Notes: Parenthetical measures on the diagonal indicate reliabilities.

* $p < .05$; *** $p < .001$.

Employ indicates employment status (paid and volunteer).

PC indicates psychological contracts (relational and transactional).

OP indicates organizational promises (benefits, good faith and fair dealings, intrinsic job characteristics, and working conditions).

OC indicates organizational commitment (affective, continuance, and normative).

OJ indicates organizational justice (distributive, interactional, and procedural).

Employment Status and the Psychological Contract

Six aspects of the psychological contract were addressed in terms of their relationship with the employment status of hospital workers. Results of the hierarchical regression can be found in Table 3. No significant results were found predicting transactional psychological contracts, relational psychological contracts, good faith and fair dealing (except in the control variable of age) organizational promises, working condition organizational promises, and intrinsic job characteristic organizational promises. Organizational promises regarding benefits were significantly related to the control variables of age, having another job that is paid, and racial identity; after the effects of control variables, benefits was still highly ($p < .001$) significantly related to being a paid employee.

Employment Status and Organizational Commitment

Three forms of organizational commitment were addressed in terms of their relationship with the employment status of hospital workers. Results of the hierarchical regression can be found in Table 4. No significant results were found predicting affective commitment (except in the control variables of age and having another job that is

Table 3. Hierarchical Regression for Psychological Contract Forms

	R^2	ΔR^2	Beta
DV: Transactional			
Step 1: Control variables	0.07	0.07	
Step 2: Employment status	0.07	0.00	0.03
DV: Relational			
Step 1: Control variables	0.08	0.08	
Step 2: Employment status	0.08	0.00	0.03
DV: Good faith			
Step 1: Control variables	0.19	0.19*	
Step 2: Employment status	0.22	0.04	-0.32
DV: Working conditions			
Step 1: Control variables	0.10	0.10	
Step 2: Employment status	0.10	0.10	-0.01
DV: Benefits			
Step 1: Control variables	0.20	0.20*	
Step 2: Employment status	0.40	0.21**	0.75
DV: Intrinsic job characteristics			
Step 1: Control variables	0.11	0.11	
Step 2: Employment status	0.12	0.01	0.19

* $p < .05$; ** $p < .001$.

Control variables include age, gender, ethnicity, income, holding a volunteer job in addition to this position, and holding a paid job in addition to this position.

Beta is for last step of the hierarchical regression.

Table 4. Hierarchical Regression for Organizational Justice and Commitment Forms

	<i>R</i> ²	ΔR^2	<i>Beta</i>
DV: Distributive justice			
Step 1: Control variables	0.22	0.22*	
Step 2: Employment status	0.22	0.22	−0.33
DV: Interactional justice			
Step 1: Control variables	0.26	0.26**	
Step 2: Employment status	0.27	0.01	−0.19
DV: Procedural justice			
Step 1: Control variables	0.08	0.08	
Step 2: Employment status	0.13	0.05	−0.38
DV: Affective commitment			
Step 1: Control variables	0.22	0.22**	
Step 2: Employment status	0.22	0.00	−0.07
DV: Continuance commitment			
Step 1: Control variables	0.18	0.18*	
Step 2: Employment status	0.34	0.16**	0.67

p* < .05; *p* < .01.

Control variables include age, gender, ethnicity, income, holding a volunteer job in addition to this position, and holding a paid job in addition to this position.

Beta is for last step of the hierarchical regression.

Although many generalizations are made in the management literature about worker attitudes, actual testing to support the generalization to voluntary workers is spotty at best

a volunteer position). Organizational commitment of a continuance nature was significantly related to the control variables of age and having another job that is a volunteer position; after the effects of control variables, continuance was still highly (*p* < .001) significantly related to being a paid employee.

Employment Status and Organizational Justice

Three forms of organizational justice were addressed in terms of their relationship with the employment status of hospital workers. Results of the hierarchical regression can be found in Table 5. No significant results were found predicting perceptions of distributive justice (except in the control variable of age), interactional justice (except in the control variables of age, sex, and having another job that is a volunteer position), or procedural justice.

Discussion

Although many generalizations are made in the management literature about worker attitudes, actual testing to support the generalization to voluntary workers is spotty at best. I have attempted to address this issue with specific tests in regard to psychological contracts, organizational commitment, and organizational justice.

Table 5. Psychological Contract Scale Development

	<i>Rousseau and Tijoriwala, Number of Items</i>	<i>Rousseau and Tijoriwala Alphas</i>	<i>My Alphas for Rousseau and Tijoriwala Items</i>	<i>My Restricted Number of Items</i>	<i>Alpha for Restricted Items</i>
Relational	7	0.82	0.77	5	0.80
Transactional	7	0.83	0.85	7	0.85
Benefits	9	0.88	0.73	4	0.80
Good faith and fair dealings	9	0.93	0.90	4	0.85
Intrinsic value	5	0.84	0.84	4	0.85
Working conditions	9	0.92	0.74	7	0.83

Findings and Implications for Research

Some have found effects for work status with contingency or contract workers when compared with regular employees, but very little has been done in comparing volunteers to paid employees. Laczó and Hanisch (1999) have already addressed job withdrawal (there is a difference) and organizational citizenship behaviors (again, a difference). This latter finding is not consistent with Pearce's findings (1993a) on the differences between regular and contract employees who did not differ in organizational citizenship behaviors. To Laczó and Hanisch's findings, I add the observed similarities and differences between volunteers and paid employees in terms of psychological contracts, organizational commitment, and organizational justice.

For the psychological contract, Van Dyne and Ang (1998) found a difference in that regular workers had stronger psychological contracts than contingent workers, when the psychological contract is perceived organizational support. In this present study, I did not look specifically at the psychological contract of perceived organizational support, but rather at the broader conceptual categorical content of psychological contracts. In looking at these broader categories, the only difference I found between paid employees and volunteers was the organization's promises regarding benefits. This issue is measured with the four statements "pay tied to your performance," "a competitive salary," "good opportunities for promotion," and "bonuses based on your performance." Three of these statements address salary specifically, which is an inherent difference between paid workers and volunteers. This lends itself to the observation that not only is the psychological contract important in the context of volunteer management (Farmer and Fedor, 1999) but also, with the exception of contract issues that concern economic matters, findings about the psychological contract with paid employees may be generalized to apply to volunteers as well.

Volunteers and paid employees in the same location, performing similar work, and subject to similar work rules, procedures, contracts, expectations, discipline, and evaluations have similar job attitudes

For affective commitment, Van Dyne and Ang (1998) found that full-time workers had a greater sense of commitment than contingent workers, but Pearce (1993a) found that there were no significant differences between regular and contract workers. In this study, I looked at both affective commitment and continuance commitment. In terms of continuance commitment, my findings are in line with Pearce's observations. This may be a result of the national culture of the United States (for this and Pearce's studies) versus Singapore (for Van Dyne and Ang's study). It might also be a result of an organizational effect on their results: they were looking at two large service firms. However, this difference of findings is highly unlikely with only two organizations; both Pearce and I were comparing workers within the same organizational environment. These differences might be more attributable to the concept of organizational investment (Tsui, Pearce, Porter, and Tripoli, 1997). Organizations that overinvest or have mutual investment between the individual and the organization have workers who express higher levels of affective commitment (Tsui, Pearce, Porter, and Tripoli, 1997). Thus, although the national location of the studies does not directly matter, the inclination and ability of the organization to treat its employees in this way would have an impact on affective commitment.

Finally, with organizational justice I introduced a new workplace issue to address in employee status research. Having found no differences indicates that the workplace environment may be more important than the status of the employee, but it is hard to place this in the greater context without research on other employee status comparisons.

The findings in this work do not necessarily negate the earlier work of Pearce (1978, 1993a, 1993b). What they do demonstrate is that some caveats must be made about generalizations based on the work by Pearce, who demonstrated that all-volunteer organizations and all-paid-employee organizations have job attitudes that differ from each other across seven types of organizations. My present study demonstrates that volunteers and paid employees in the same location, performing similar work, and subject to similar work rules, procedures, contracts, expectations, discipline, and evaluations have job attitudes similar to one another for psychological contracts (except regarding benefits), affective commitment, and organizational justice. This is very important, as there have not been any studies demonstrating that a job attitude observed among paid employees is generalizable to volunteers. However, the vast majority of organizations using volunteers do not have them working side-by-side with paid employees, nor are they entirely on their own. Many organizations using volunteers have paid managers who supervise a volunteer workforce.

Findings and Implications for the Manager of Volunteers

Any organization using volunteers is confronted with the question of the degree to which the work experience for volunteers should be formalized. In the hospital setting presented in this study, volunteers were highly trained, had specific limitations on what they could and could not do (such as restrictions on touching patients), and had contracts specifying their term of service as a volunteer. This is not the norm. At the other extreme, organizations can have free-flowing volunteers with minimal instructions and wide latitude in performing tasks (such as picking up trash in a park). This range of formalization is much more akin to the employee-versus-contractor dichotomy established in legal tradition.

An organization using volunteers will fit the task to the people available and recruit people for the necessary tasks to be accomplished. In these two approaches, some differences may be observed. When recruiting people for a specific task that is previously defined, a more formal relationship may need to be established, especially as the complexity of the task increases (such as aiding nurses in a hospital setting). In such a setting, a more professional environment may be necessary, and this study indicates that at least in one instance volunteers take on job attitudes that are quite similar to those of paid employees. In a grassroots organization—where one finds people seeking a task, as it were—people define the organization's environment, and one may end up with a situation in which their job attitudes are radically different from those of paid employees.

Finally, several constructs were addressed in this study. Others have developed models on how these constructs relate (see Morrison and Robinson, 1997), but for the practicing manager understanding the nuanced differences here can help in successfully understanding and managing volunteers (Liao-Troth and Dunn, 1999). Volunteers may believe that they have made certain agreements with the organization as to what they will provide the organization and what the organization will provide them. If a manager is not aware of her or his volunteers' psychological contracts, then he or she may unintentionally violate the volunteers' psychological contracts, which can have negative consequences in terms of job performance. Likewise, a negative attitude about the organization can hurt the work environment, and if expressed publicly it can hurt the external reputation of the organization. Finally, the sense of fairness and justice in the workplace, which has been shown to have an effect on such issues (as with people planning to leave), is important not only to paid employees but to volunteers as well.

Limitations

There are several limitations of this study: the motivations of the volunteers, the organization studied, and the sample.

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Volunteer Motives. An issue not addressed in this study that may be of paramount importance is the motive to volunteer. The differences in motive of volunteers can have a tremendous impact on their behavior and determine the appropriate method of managing them. The motives of the volunteers would potentially moderate all effects that were found in this study. Determining the motives of volunteers is a common issue in volunteer research, but understanding how important these motives are in managing them appropriately is lacking. These motives direct volunteers toward certain volunteer opportunities and away from others. Volunteers seek out organizations that provide what they want and expect (Clary and Snyder, 1999). These potential volunteers will form perceptions of what they commit to an organization, and what they expect the organization to provide them. In this way, they are more like paid employees.

Organization of Study. The findings in a hospital may not be generalizable to other organizations using volunteers; the findings in this study may not even be generalizable to other hospitals. Two issues in this sample limit generalizability to other organizations using volunteers.

The first is volunteer contracts. The hospital of study uses contracts to specify and describe volunteer positions. A person volunteering with this hospital signs a contract that delineates job duties and expectations of job performance. A check of other hospitals in the area found that this is a common though not uniform practice; it is also not a universal practice among nonprofits in other areas of service. This may have had an unanticipated effect on some findings or skewed the data in the direction of the hypotheses by making the volunteer feel more like an employee.

A second issue is job prohibitions on volunteers in hospitals. Many hospitals, especially private for-profit, are restricted in terms of which jobs volunteers can do. These are not in place by any state statute or federal law; they are developed in negotiated work agreements with labor unions representing hospital employees. Some for-profit hospitals have engaged in a practice of using volunteer workers to reduce the payroll and lay off paid employees. Indeed, in another metropolitan area of the southwestern United States, all the major hospitals had such agreements, irrespective of their for-profit, nonprofit, or public status (Liao-Troth, 1999). This restriction was not found in the hospital studied but makes comparison, replication, and generalization to other hospitals difficult.

The Sample. The sample may not be representative of volunteers in general. As mentioned before, the proportion of women volunteering in this hospital is quite high, and the racial diversity of the subjects is low when compared to volunteers in general. For this reason, the control variables were entered first in the hierarchical regression, but these demographics indicated that the subjects themselves may not be representative of the population.

Appendix

Measuring the Psychological Contract

For this study, an early version of Rousseau's instrument (1998) was used. Some psychometric aspects of the instrument are discussed in Rousseau and Tijoriwala (1996a, 1996b). The instrument used for this study was obtained at that time (personal communication, Aug. 14, 1996). Rousseau's 1998 instrument is a further development of her instrument used for Rousseau and Tijoriwala (1996a, 1996b).

The measure separates out what the organization promises to the employee from what the employee feels that he or she has promised to the organization. I reduced the number of items in Rousseau's instrument in an effort to achieve parsimony. A total of 339 upper-division business students in a southwestern public university were asked to retrospectively consider a job held either as a volunteer or a paid employee. They were then asked to evaluate that job along Rousseau's dimensions. Results were evaluated using two exploratory factor analyses, with a principle-components method of extraction and varimax (orthogonal) rotation of factors—one for the issues promised to the organization by the individual, and one for the issues promised to the individual by the organization.

The number of factors was prespecified for both obligations of the worker and obligations of the organization. Items were eliminated on the basis of three rules: (1) those with alpha correlation of <0.3 were to be removed (this did not apply to any item); (2) factor loads of >0.3 on two or more factors were removed; and (3) primary factor loads of <0.5 were removed. Restricting the items in this manner reduces the measure from fourteen to twelve items addressing the promises of the individual to the organization, and from thirty-two to nineteen items addressing the promises of the organization to the individual. Results can be found in Table 5, and the actual items can be found in Table 6. Single measures for all six dimensions of the psychological contract were formed by averaging the multiple measures of each item.

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Table 6. Psychological Contract Scale Items

Contracts	Organizational Promises
<i>Relational</i>	<i>Benefits</i>
4. Stay with the organization for a minimum of two years after accepting a job	1. An attractive benefits package
6. Accept a transfer to another geographical location if necessary	2. Pay tied to your performance
10. Not look for a job elsewhere	8. A flexible benefits package
11. Accept an internal transfer if necessary	12. A relatively secure job
14. Travel if necessary	16. A competitive salary
21. Accept a job change within your unit	19. Good opportunities for promotion
24. Not support the organization's competitors	25. Attractive vacation benefits
<i>Transactional</i>	27. Bonuses based on your performance
2. Adhere to professional standards	30. Reasonable job security
3. Meet minimal acceptable standards for performance	<i>Good Faith and Fair Dealing</i>
9. Perform your job in a reliable manner	3. Fair treatment
15. Behave in a professional manner	7. Support
16. Protect confidential information	10. Open communication
23. Dress in a professional manner	13. Collaborative work
26. Follow the organization's norms and policies	17. Candid and open feedback
	23. Respect
	24. Cooperative work relationship
	28. Honest treatment
	32. Collegiality
	<i>Intrinsic Job Characteristics</i>
	6. A job that is interesting
	9. Meaningful work
	15. A job that has high responsibility
	20. A job that provides autonomy
	29. A job that is challenging
	<i>Working Conditions</i>
	4. The resources necessary to do your job
	5. Healthy work
	11. The tools to perform your job
	14. The opportunity to learn
	18. Materials and equipment needed to perform your job
	21. Clean work
	22. Skill development
	26. Safe work
	31. Training

Note: Item number is order of presentation. Relational and transactional formed one list; benefits, good faith and fair dealing, intrinsic job characteristics, and working conditions formed another list. Lined-out items were eliminated, as described under "Methods" in this article.

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